Convexity, Infimum and Sums

Last modified: 2026-10-13 09:50:21 (PDT)

Convex functions

Exercise 0.1 (A value compared with an average of values)**.** Let $f(x) = (x-2)^2$, and take the points $x = 0$ and $y = 4$ with $t = \frac{1}{2}$.

1. Compute $f(tx + (1-t)y)$.
2. Compute $tf(x) + (1-t)f(y)$.
3. Is $f(tx + (1-t)y) \leq tf(x) + (1-t)f(y)$?

Solution

Solution 0.1.

1. With $t = \frac{1}{2}$,

$$\begin{aligned} tx + (1-t)y &= \tfrac{1}{2} \cdot 0 + \tfrac{1}{2} \cdot 4 \\ &= 2, \end{aligned}$$

so

$$\begin{aligned} f(2) &= (2-2)^2 \\ &= 0. \end{aligned}$$

2.

$$\begin{aligned} f(0) &= (0-2)^2 \\ &= 4 \end{aligned}$$

and

$$\begin{aligned} f(4) &= (4-2)^2 \\ &= 4, \end{aligned}$$

so $\frac{1}{2} \cdot 4 + \frac{1}{2} \cdot 4 = 4$.

3. Yes: $0 \leq 4$. The value of f at the midpoint of 0 and 4 is below the average of its values at the two endpoints.

Definition 0.1 (Line segment)**.** Let $x, y \in \mathbb{R}^p$. The **line segment** from x to y is the set of points

$$\{tx + (1-t)y : t \in [0,1]\}.$$

The value $t = 1$ gives x, the value $t = 0$ gives y, and $t = \frac{1}{2}$ gives the midpoint $\frac{1}{2}(x+y)$.

Example 0.1 (A line segment in $\mathbb{R}$)**.** For $p = 1$, $x = 0$ and $y = 4$, the line segment from x to y is the interval $[0, 4]$. The value $t = \frac{1}{4}$ gives the point $\frac{1}{4} \cdot 0 + \frac{3}{4} \cdot 4 = 3$.

Definition 0.2 (Chord)**.** Let $f : \mathbb{R}^p \to \mathbb{R}$ be a function, and let $x, y \in \mathbb{R}^p$. The **chord** of f from x to y is the line segment (Definition 0.1) in $\mathbb{R}^{p+1}$ from the point $(x, f(x))$ to the point $(y, f(y))$ of the graph of f:

$$\{(tx + (1-t)y,\ tf(x) + (1-t)f(y)) : t \in [0,1]\}.$$

Above the point $tx + (1-t)y$, the chord has height $tf(x) + (1-t)f(y)$.

Example 0.2 (A chord of x^2)**.** For $f(x) = x^2$, $x = -1$ and $y = 3$, the chord runs from $(-1, f(-1)) = (-1, 1)$ to $(3, f(3)) = (3, 9)$. With $t = \frac{1}{2}$, it passes through $\left(\frac{1}{2} \cdot (-1) + \frac{1}{2} \cdot 3,\ \frac{1}{2} \cdot 1 + \frac{1}{2} \cdot 9\right) = (1, 5)$, so above the point 1 it has height 5.

Definition 0.3 (Convex function)**.** Let $f : \mathbb{R}^p \to \mathbb{R}$ be a function. f is **convex** if

$$f(tx + (1-t)y) \leq tf(x) + (1-t)f(y)$$

for all $x, y \in \mathbb{R}^p$ and all $t \in [0, 1]$.

Remark 0.1 (Chords lie on or above the graph). The point $tx + (1-t)y$ lies on the line segment from x to y, and the right-hand side is the height above that point of the chord of f from x to y. So f is convex when every chord lies on or above the graph.
For example, take $f(x) = x^2$, $x = -1$, $y = 3$, and $t = \frac{1}{2}$. The point is $\frac{1}{2} \cdot (-1) + \frac{1}{2} \cdot 3 = 1$, where the graph has height $f(1) = 1$ and the chord has height

$$\begin{aligned}\tfrac{1}{2}f(-1)+\tfrac{1}{2}f(3) &= \tfrac{1}{2}\cdot 1+\tfrac{1}{2}\cdot 9\\ &= 5.\end{aligned}$$

The chord is above the graph: $1 \leq 5$.

Example 0.3 (A function that is not convex)**.** The function in Exercise 2 in Equalities, Inequalities and Minimizers, $f(x) = x^3 - 3x$, is not convex. Take $x = -2$, $y = 0$, $t = \frac{1}{2}$. The point is $\frac{1}{2}\cdot(-2)+\frac{1}{2}\cdot 0 = -1$, where the graph has height

$$\begin{aligned}f(-1) &= -1+3\\ &= 2,\end{aligned}$$

but the chord has height

$$\begin{aligned}\tfrac{1}{2}f(-2)+\tfrac{1}{2}f(0) &= \tfrac{1}{2}(-8+6)+\tfrac{1}{2}\cdot 0\\ &= -1,\end{aligned}$$

and $2 \leq -1$ is false.

Example 0.4 (A convex and a non-convex function)**.** $f(x) = (x-2)^2$ is convex (Definition 0.3): by expanding the square, $f(tx+(1-t)y)-tf(x)-(1-t)f(y) = -t(1-t)(x-y)^2 \leq 0$. Its local minimizer $x^* = 2$ is also a global minimizer, since

$$\begin{aligned}f(x) &= (x-2)^2\\ &\geq 0\\ &= f(2)\end{aligned}$$

for every x.
Without convexity, a local minimizer need not be global: $f(x) = x^3 - 3x$ is not convex (Example 0.3), and it has a local minimizer at $x^* = 1$ that is not global (Exercise 2 in Equalities, Inequalities and Minimizers).

Theorem 0.1 (Local minimizers of convex functions are global)**.** *Let $f : \mathbb{R}^p \to \mathbb{R}$ be a convex function. Every local minimizer of f is a global minimizer of f over $\mathbb{R}^p$.*

Proof

Proof. Let x^* be a local minimizer of f, so there is a $\delta > 0$ with $f(x^*) \leq f(x)$ whenever $\|x - x^*\| < \delta$ (Definition 12 in Equalities, Inequalities and Minimizers). Suppose x^* is not a global minimizer (Definition 11 in Equalities, Inequalities and Minimizers). Then some $y \in \mathbb{R}^p$ has $f(y) < f(x^*)$, and in particular $y \neq x^*$.

Let $t = \min\left\{\frac{1}{2}, \frac{\delta}{2\|y - x^*\|}\right\}$, so $t \in (0,1)$, and let $z = ty + (1-t)x^*$. Then $z - x^* = t(y - x^*)$, so $\|z - x^*\| = t\|y - x^*\| \leq \delta/2 < \delta$.
By convexity,

$$f(z) \leq tf(y) + (1-t)f(x^*) < tf(x^*) + (1-t)f(x^*) = f(x^*),$$

where the strict inequality uses $t > 0$ and $f(y) < f(x^*)$. So $f(z) < f(x^*)$ with $\|z - x^*\| < \delta$, which contradicts x^* being a local minimizer. Hence x^* is a global minimizer. □

Theorem 0.2 (Jensen's inequality for a weighted average)**.** *Let $f : \mathbb{R}^p \to \mathbb{R}$ be a convex function. Let $x_1, \ldots, x_n \in \mathbb{R}^p$, and let $w_1, \ldots, w_n \geq 0$ be weights with $\sum_{i=1}^n w_i = 1$. Then*

$$f\left(\sum_{i=1}^n w_i x_i\right) \leq \sum_{i=1}^n w_i f(x_i).$$

Proof

Proof. The proof is by induction on n.
For $n = 1$ the weight is $w_1 = 1$, and both sides equal $f(x_1)$.
Now let $n \geq 2$, and assume the inequality holds for $n - 1$ points. If $w_n = 1$, the other weights are all 0, and both sides equal $f(x_n)$. Otherwise let

$$\begin{aligned} s &= 1 - w_n \\ &= \sum_{i=1}^{n-1} w_i \\ &> 0 \end{aligned}$$

and

$$y = \sum_{i=1}^{n-1} \frac{w_i}{s} x_i.$$

The weights w_i/s are non-negative and sum to 1, so the induction assumption gives

$$f(y) \leq \sum_{i=1}^{n-1} \frac{w_i}{s} f(x_i).$$

Since $\sum_{i=1}^n w_i x_i = sy + (1-s)x_n$ and $s \in (0,1]$, the definition of a convex function (Definition 0.3) gives

$$f\left(\sum_{i=1}^n w_i x_i\right) = f(sy + (1-s)x_n) \leq sf(y) + (1-s)f(x_n).$$

Substituting the bound on $f(y)$, and using $1 - s = w_n$,

$$sf(y) + (1-s)f(x_n) \leq \sum_{i=1}^{n-1} w_i f(x_i) + w_n f(x_n) = \sum_{i=1}^{n} w_i f(x_i).$$

□

Example 0.5 (The average of the squares is at least the square of the average)**.** Take $f(x) = x^2$. It is convex by Definition 0.3: for $t \in [0,1]$,

$$tx^2 + (1-t)y^2 - (tx + (1-t)y)^2 = t(1-t)(x-y)^2 \geq 0.$$

Take the three points $x_1 = 1$, $x_2 = 2$, $x_3 = 6$, and the equal weights

$$\begin{aligned} w_1 &= w_2 \\ &= w_3 \\ &= \tfrac{1}{3}. \end{aligned}$$

The weighted average of the points is their ordinary average, $\frac{1}{3}(1+2+6) = 3$, so the left side of Theorem 0.2 is $f(3) = 9$. The right side is the average of the squares, $\frac{1}{3}(1+4+36) = \frac{41}{3}$. The inequality holds: $9 \leq \frac{41}{3}$.
The gap is $\frac{41}{3} - 9 = \frac{14}{3}$. That is the average squared distance of the points from their average, $\frac{1}{3}((1-3)^2 + (2-3)^2 + (6-3)^2) = \frac{14}{3}$, which statistics calls the variance of the three points (about their mean, defined later). For $f(x) = x^2$, Jensen's inequality says this average squared distance is never negative.

Remark 0.2 (The inequality reverses for concave functions). If f is concave, then $-f$ is convex, and applying Theorem 0.2 to $-f$ reverses the inequality: $f\left(\sum_i w_i x_i\right) \geq \sum_i w_i f(x_i)$. For $f(x) = -x^2$ and the points in Example 0.5, $f(3) = -9 \geq -\frac{41}{3}$.

Infimum and supremum

Definition 0.4 (Upper and lower bounds)**.** Let $A \subseteq \mathbb{R}$.

- A real number u is an **upper bound** for A if $a \leq u$ for all $a \in A$.
- A real number ℓ is a **lower bound** for A if $\ell \leq a$ for all $a \in A$.

A is **bounded above** if it has an upper bound, **bounded below** if it has a lower bound, and **bounded** if it is both bounded above and bounded below. A real-valued function is bounded above, bounded below, or bounded if its image is.

Example 0.6 (Bounded and unbounded sets)**.**

- For $A = (0, 1]$, 1, 2, and 100 are upper bounds, and 0 and -5 are lower bounds, so A is bounded. 0.5 is not an upper bound, because $0.6 \in A$ and $0.6 > 0.5$.
- The natural numbers $\mathbb{N} = \{1, 2, 3, ...\}$ are bounded below, by 1, but not bounded above: for any real number u, some natural number n satisfies $n > u$.

Theorem 0.3 (Completeness of the real numbers)**.** *Let $A \subseteq \mathbb{R}$ be nonempty.*

- *If A is bounded above, the set of upper bounds of A has a minimum.*
- *If A is bounded below, the set of lower bounds of A has a maximum.*

Proof

Proof. The first statement is the least-upper-bound property of $\mathbb{R}$ (Rudin 1976, Definition 1.8, p. 4, and Theorem 1.19, p. 8). For the second, let $-A = \{-a : a \in A\}$. Negating both sides of an inequality reverses it (Theorem 4 in Equalities, Inequalities and Minimizers), so ℓ is a lower bound of A exactly when $-\ell$ is an upper bound of $-A$. The set $-A$ is nonempty and bounded above, so by the first statement its upper bounds have a minimum u, and then $-u$ is the largest lower bound of A. □

Example 0.7 (Completeness for an interval)**.** For $A = (1, 2]$, the lower bounds of A are the numbers $\ell \leq 1$, and the largest of them is 1. The upper bounds of A are the numbers $u \geq 2$, and the smallest of them is 2.

Definition 0.5 (Infimum (greatest lower bound))**.** Let $A \subseteq \mathbb{R}$ be nonempty and bounded below (Definition 0.4). The **infimum** of A, written $\inf A$, is the greatest real number t satisfying $t \leq a$ for all $a \in A$:

$$\inf A \stackrel{\text{def}}{=} \max\{t \in \mathbb{R} : \forall a \in A,\ t \leq a\}$$

If A is nonempty but not bounded below, we write $\inf A = -\infty$ by convention.

Remark 0.3 (Existence of the infimum, and when it is a minimum). The maximum in Definition 0.5 always exists, by the completeness of the real numbers (Theorem 0.3). For example, for $A = (1, 2]$, the numbers t with $t \leq a$ for all $a \in A$ are those with $t \leq 1$, and the largest of them is 1, so $\inf A = 1$.
If the infimum belongs to A, it equals the minimum: $\inf A = \min A$. For example,

$$\begin{aligned} \inf[1, 2] &= 1 \\ &= \min[1, 2]. \end{aligned}$$

For $A = (1, 2]$, the infimum 1 is not in A, and A has no minimum.

Example 0.8 (Numerical examples of infimum)**.**

- $\inf\{1, 2, 3\} = 1$, since 1 is the smallest element.
- $$\begin{aligned} \inf(0.5, 1] &= 0.5 \\ &= \min[0.5, 1] : \end{aligned}$$

  for intervals open below, the infimum equals the minimum of the corresponding closed-below interval, even though $0.5 \notin (0.5, 1]$. More generally,

  $$\begin{aligned} \inf(c, b] &= \min[c, b] \\ &= c \end{aligned}$$

  for any $c < b$.
- $\inf\{t \geq 0 : t > 0.5\} = 0.5$, even though 0.5 itself is not in the set.
- $\inf\{-1, -2, -3, ...\} = -\infty$, because no real number is less than or equal to every element of that set.

Definition 0.6 (Supremum (least upper bound))**.** Let $A \subseteq \mathbb{R}$ be nonempty and bounded above (Definition 0.4). The **supremum** of A, written $\sup A$, is the smallest real number t satisfying $a \leq t$ for all $a \in A$:

$$\sup A \stackrel{\text{def}}{=} \min\{t \in \mathbb{R} : \forall a \in A,\ a \leq t\}$$

If A is nonempty but not bounded above, we write $\sup A = +\infty$ by convention.

Remark 0.4 (Existence of the supremum, and when it is a maximum). The minimum in Definition 0.6 always exists, by the completeness of the real numbers (Theorem 0.3). For example, for $A = [1, 2)$, the numbers t with $a \leq t$ for all $a \in A$ are those with $t \geq 2$, and the smallest of them is 2, so $\sup A = 2$.
If the supremum belongs to A, it equals the maximum: $\sup A = \max A$. For example,

$$\begin{aligned} \sup[1, 2] &= 2 \\ &= \max[1, 2]. \end{aligned}$$

For $A = [1, 2)$, the supremum 2 is not in A, and A has no maximum.

Example 0.9 (Numerical examples of supremum)**.**

- $\sup\{1, 2, 3\} = 3$, since 3 is the largest element.
- $\sup\{t \geq 0 : t < 0.5\} = 0.5$, even though 0.5 itself is not in the set.
- $\sup\{1, 2, 3, ...\} = +\infty$, because no real number is greater than or equal to every element of that set.

Sums

Definition 0.7 (Term of a sum)**.** In a sum $a_1 + a_2 + \cdots + a_n$, each of the numbers or expressions $a_1, a_2, \ldots, a_n$ being added is a **term** of the sum.

Example 0.10 (Terms of a sum)**.**

- The sum $3 + 5 + 9$ has three terms: 3, 5 and 9.
- The sum $x^2 - 3x + 7 = x^2 + (-3x) + 7$ has three terms: x^2, $-3x$ and 7. A subtracted expression counts as a term with a minus sign.

Definition 0.8 (Identity element)**.** Let S be a set, such as the real numbers $\mathbb{R}$, and let $\star$ be an operation that combines two elements a and b of S into an element $a \star b$ of S, such as addition $(a + b)$ or multiplication $(a \times b)$ of real numbers. An element u of S is an **identity element** for $\star$ if $a \star u = a$ and $u \star a = a$ for every $a \in S$.

Example 0.11 (Identity elements for addition and multiplication)**.**

- 0 is the identity element for addition: for example, $5 + 0 = 5$ and $0 + 5 = 5$ (Theorem 0.4).
- 1 is the identity element for multiplication: for example, $5 \times 1 = 5$ and $1 \times 5 = 5$

(Theorem 0.7).
- 0 is not an identity element for subtraction: $5 - 0 = 5$, but $0 - 5 = -5 \neq 5$.

Definition 0.9 (Commutative operation)**.** An operation $\star$ on a set S (Definition 0.8) is **commutative** if $a \star b = b \star a$ for all $a, b \in S$: the order of the two inputs does not matter. Some sources, including the titles of Theorem 0.5 and Theorem 0.8, call a commutative operation **symmetric**.

Example 0.12 (A commutative operation, and one that is not)**.**

- Addition is commutative: for example,

$$\begin{aligned} 2 + 5 &= 7 \\ &= 5 + 2. \end{aligned}$$

- Subtraction is not commutative: $5 - 3 = 2$, but $3 - 5 = -2$.

Definition 0.10 (Associative operation)**.** An operation $\star$ on a set S (Definition 0.8) is **associative** if $(a \star b) \star c = a \star (b \star c)$ for all $a, b, c \in S$: which pair is combined first does not matter.

Example 0.13 (An associative operation, and one that is not)**.**

- Multiplication is associative: for example,

$$\begin{aligned} (2 \times 3) \times 4 &= 6 \times 4 \\ &= 24 \end{aligned}$$

and

$$\begin{aligned} 2 \times (3 \times 4) &= 2 \times 12 \\ &= 24. \end{aligned}$$

- Subtraction is not associative:

$$\begin{aligned} (8 - 4) - 2 &= 4 - 2 \\ &= 2, \end{aligned}$$

but

$$\begin{aligned} 8-(4-2) &= 8-2 \\ &= 6. \end{aligned}$$

Theorem 0.4 (Adding zero changes nothing)**.**

$$a+0=a$$

Theorem 0.5 (Sums are symmetric)**.**

$$a+b=b+a$$

Theorem 0.6 (Sums are associative)**.** *When adding three numbers, it does not matter which pair you add first:*

$$(a+b)+c=a+(b+c)$$

Example 0.14 (Grouping a sum two ways)**.**

$$\begin{aligned} (2+3)+4 &= 5+4 \\ &= 9, \end{aligned}$$

and

$$\begin{aligned} 2+(3+4) &= 2+7 \\ &= 9. \end{aligned}$$

Products

Theorem 0.7 (Multiplying by 1 changes nothing)**.**

$$a \times 1 = a$$

Theorem 0.8 (Products are symmetric)**.**

$$a \times b = b \times a$$

Theorem 0.9 (Products are associative)**.**

$$(a \times b) \times c = a \times (b \times c)$$

Division

Theorem 0.10 (Division can be written as a product)**.** *If* $b \neq 0$*, then*

$$\frac{a}{b} = a \times \frac{1}{b}$$

Sums and products together

Definition 0.11 (Distributes over)**.** An operation $\star$ on a set S **distributes over** an operation $\diamond$ on S if

$$a \star (b \diamond c) = (a \star b) \diamond (a \star c)$$

for all $a, b, c \in S$.

Definition 0.12 (Distributive law)**.** The **distributive law** is the statement that multiplication distributes over addition (Definition 0.11): $a \times (b + c) = (a \times b) + (a \times c)$ (Theorem 0.11). We then say multiplication is **distributive**.

Example 0.15 (Multiplication distributes over addition, but not the reverse)**.**

- $$\begin{aligned} 3 \times (4 + 5) &= 3 \times 9 \\ &= 27, \end{aligned}$$

  and

  $$\begin{aligned} (3 \times 4) + (3 \times 5) &= 12 + 15 \\ &= 27. \end{aligned}$$

- Addition does not distribute over multiplication:

  $$\begin{aligned} 2 + (3 \times 4) &= 2 + 12 \\ &= 14, \end{aligned}$$

but

$$\begin{aligned}(2+3)\times(2+4) &= 5\times 6\\ &= 30.\end{aligned}$$

Theorem 0.11 (Multiplication is distributive)**.**

$$a(b+c) = ab + ac$$

Definition 0.13 (Like terms)**.** Two terms of a sum are **like terms** if they are the same product of variables, each to the same power, possibly multiplied by different constants: $c_1 m$ and $c_2 m$, where c_1 and c_2 are constants and m is that product. To **collect** like terms is to replace their sum by one term, using the distributive law (Theorem 0.11): $c_1 m + c_2 m = (c_1 + c_2)m$.

Example 0.16 (Like and unlike terms)**.**

- $3ab$ and $-5ab$ are like terms; collecting them gives

$$\begin{aligned}3ab + (-5ab) &= (3-5)ab\\ &= -2ab.\end{aligned}$$

- $2x$ and $2x^2$ are not like terms: x appears to different powers.

Exercise 0.2 (Expand a squared sum)**.** Is $(3+4)^2$ equal to 3^2+4^2? Then expand $(a+b)^2$ for any numbers a and b, using only the distributive law and the rules above.

Solution

Solution 0.2. No:

$$\begin{aligned}(3+4)^2 &= 7^2\\ &= 49,\end{aligned}$$

while

$$\begin{aligned}3^2+4^2 &= 9+16\\ &= 25.\end{aligned}$$

The difference, $49-25=24$, is $2\cdot 3\cdot 4$.

To see where that extra term comes from, write the square as a product and apply the distributive law (Theorem 0.11) twice:

$$\begin{aligned}
(a+b)^2 &= (a+b)(a+b) && \text{(definition of a square)} \\
&= (a+b)\,a + (a+b)\,b && \text{(distributive law)} \\
&= (a^2+ba) + (ab+b^2) && \text{(distributive law, twice)} \\
&= a^2 + ab + ab + b^2 && \text{(commutative and associative laws)} \\
&= a^2 + 2ab + b^2 && \text{(collect like terms, Definition 0.13)}
\end{aligned}$$

The step "commutative and associative laws" uses Theorem 0.8 to write ba as ab, and Theorem 0.6 to drop the parentheses.

Theorem 0.12 (Square of a sum)**.** *For any numbers a and b,*

$$(a+b)^2 = a^2 + 2ab + b^2$$

Proof

Proof. By Solution 0.2. □

Remark 0.5 (Square of a difference)*.* Replacing b by $-b$ in Theorem 0.12 gives $(a-b)^2 = a^2 - 2ab + b^2$. For example, the square $(y-\hat{y})^2$ of the difference between an observed value y and a prediction $\hat{y}$ of it expands this way. With $y = 5$ and $\hat{y} = 3$,

$$\begin{aligned}
(5-3)^2 &= 2^2 \\
&= 4,
\end{aligned}$$

and

$$\begin{aligned}
5^2 - 2\cdot 5\cdot 3 + 3^2 &= 25 - 30 + 9 \\
&= 4.
\end{aligned}$$

Summation notation

Exercise 0.3 (Expand a sum)**.** The expression $\sum_{i=1}^{4} i^2$ is shorthand for a sum of four terms.

1. Guess which four terms, and add them up.

2. Write $\frac{1}{N}\sum_{i=1}^{N}(y_i - \hat{y}_i)^2$ for $N = 3$ without the $\sum$ symbol.

Solution

Solution 0.3.

1. Replace i by each of $1, 2, 3, 4$ in turn, and add the results:

$$\begin{aligned}\sum_{i=1}^{4} i^2 &= 1^2 + 2^2 + 3^2 + 4^2 \\ &= 1 + 4 + 9 + 16 \\ &= 30\end{aligned}$$

2. Replace i by each of $1, 2, 3$ in turn inside the parentheses, add the three squares, and multiply the total by $\frac{1}{3}$:

$$\frac{1}{3}\sum_{i=1}^{3}(y_i - \hat{y}_i)^2 = \frac{1}{3}[(y_1 - \hat{y}_1)^2 + (y_2 - \hat{y}_2)^2 + (y_3 - \hat{y}_3)^2]$$

Definition 0.14 (Summation notation)**.** Let m and n be integers with $m \leq n$, and let $a_m, a_{m+1}, \ldots, a_n$ be numbers. The **sum** of a_m through a_n is

$$\sum_{i=m}^{n} a_i \stackrel{\text{def}}{=} a_m + a_{m+1} + \cdots + a_n$$

The variable i is the **index** of the sum; m and n are its **lower** and **upper limits**.

Remark 0.6 (The index is a placeholder). The name of the index does not change the sum: $\sum_{i=1}^{n} a_i$ and $\sum_{j=1}^{n} a_j$ are the same number. For example,

$$\begin{aligned}\sum_{i=1}^{3} i &= 1 + 2 + 3 \\ &= 6\end{aligned}$$

and

$$\begin{aligned}\sum_{j=1}^{3} j &= 1 + 2 + 3 \\ &= 6.\end{aligned}$$

Definition 0.15 (Empty sum)**.** When the upper limit is less than the lower limit ($n < m$), the sum $\sum_{i=m}^{n} a_i$ has no terms. By convention, such an **empty sum** equals 0. For example, $\sum_{i=1}^{0} a_i = 0$.

Exercise 0.4 (Rearrange a sum)**.** Let c be a number, and let a_1, a_2, a_3 and b_1, b_2, b_3 be numbers. Using Definition 0.14 and the rules of algebra above, show that:

1. $\sum_{i=1}^{3} c\, a_i = c \sum_{i=1}^{3} a_i$;
2. $\sum_{i=1}^{3} (a_i + b_i) = \sum_{i=1}^{3} a_i + \sum_{i=1}^{3} b_i$.

Does either argument depend on there being exactly three terms?

Solution

Solution 0.4. Each step below applies Definition 0.14, the distributive law (Theorem 0.11), or the commutative and associative laws of addition (Theorem 0.5 and Theorem 0.6).

1. Expand the sum, then factor out c:

$$\begin{aligned} \sum_{i=1}^{3} c\, a_i &= c\, a_1 + c\, a_2 + c\, a_3 && \text{(expand the sum)} \\ &= c(a_1 + a_2 + a_3) && \text{(distributive law)} \\ &= c \sum_{i=1}^{3} a_i && \text{(collect the sum)} \end{aligned}$$

2. Expand the sum, then regroup the terms:

$$\begin{aligned} \sum_{i=1}^{3} (a_i + b_i) &= (a_1 + b_1) + (a_2 + b_2) + (a_3 + b_3) && \text{(expand the sum)} \\ &= (a_1 + a_2 + a_3) + (b_1 + b_2 + b_3) && \text{(commutative and associative laws)} \\ &= \sum_{i=1}^{3} a_i + \sum_{i=1}^{3} b_i && \text{(collect the sum)} \end{aligned}$$

Neither argument uses the number of terms: the same steps work for any lower and upper limits.

Theorem 0.13 (A constant factor comes out of a sum)**.** *For any number c and numbers $a_m, \dots, a_n$,*

$$\sum_{i=m}^{n} c\, a_i = c \sum_{i=m}^{n} a_i$$

Proof

Proof. By Solution 0.4, part 1. □

Theorem 0.14 (A sum of sums splits)**.** *For any numbers $a_m, \dots, a_n$ and $b_m, \dots, b_n$,*

$$\sum_{i=m}^{n} (a_i + b_i) = \sum_{i=m}^{n} a_i + \sum_{i=m}^{n} b_i$$

Proof

Proof. By Solution 0.4, part 2. □

Exercise 0.5 (Sum over a set)**.** Let $A = \{-1, 2, 5\}$ and let $f(x) = x^2$. The expression $\sum_{x \in A} f(x)$ means: add up $f(x)$ for each element x of A.

1. Write $\sum_{x \in A} f(x)$ without the $\sum$ symbol, and compute its value.
2. List the elements of A in a different order, and add up the same terms in that order. Is the total the same?

Solution

Solution 0.5.

1. Replace x by each element of A in turn, and add the results:

$$\begin{aligned} \sum_{x \in A} f(x) &= f(-1) + f(2) + f(5) \\ &= (-1)^2 + 2^2 + 5^2 \\ &= 1 + 4 + 25 \\ &= 30 \end{aligned}$$

2. In the order $5, -1, 2$, the terms are 25, 1 and 4. Their total is $25 + 1 + 4 = 30$. The total is the same, because addition does not depend on the order of the terms.

Definition 0.16 (Sum over a finite set)**.** Let $A = \{x_1, x_2, \ldots, x_k\}$ be a finite set with $k \geq 1$ different elements. Let f be a function that gives a number $f(x)$ for each element x of A. The **sum of f over A** is

$$\sum_{x \in A} f(x) \stackrel{\text{def}}{=} f(x_1) + f(x_2) + \cdots + f(x_k)$$

If A has no elements, the sum has no terms, and by convention it equals 0. For example, $\sum_{x \in \{\}} x^2 = 0$.

Remark 0.7 (The order of the terms does not matter). The order in which we list the elements of A does not change the sum. The reason is that addition is commutative and associative: we can reorder and regroup the terms of a finite sum without changing the total. For example, if $A = \{1, 2, 3\}$ and $f(x) = x^2$, listing A as $1, 2, 3$ gives $1 + 4 + 9 = 14$, and listing A as $3, 1, 2$ gives $9 + 1 + 4 = 14$. Exercise 0.5, part 2, shows another example. When $A = \{m, m + 1, \ldots, n\}$, this sum is the same as $\sum_{i=m}^{n} f(i)$ from Definition 0.14.

Remark 0.8 (Leaving the set out). Some authors leave the set out and write $\sum_x f(x)$. This shorthand means the sum over every value x can take, $\sum_{x \in \mathcal{R}(x)} f(x)$, where $\mathcal{R}(x)$ is the range of x. For example, if x is the outcome of one roll of a six-sided die, $\sum_x f(x)$ means $\sum_{x \in \{1,2,3,4,5,6\}} f(x)$. In these notes, we write the set out in full (see Notational shorthands).

Quotients

Definition 0.17 (Quotient)**.** For real numbers a and b with $b \neq 0$, the **quotient** of a by b is the result of dividing a by b:

$$\frac{a}{b}$$

Definition 0.18 (Fraction, numerator, and denominator)**.** A quotient $\frac{a}{b}$ (Definition 0.17) is also called a **fraction**; a is its **numerator** and b its **denominator**. For example, the fraction $\frac{6}{4}$ has numerator 6 and denominator 4.

Example 0.17 (A quotient)**.** The quotient of 6 by 4 is $\frac{6}{4} = 1.5$. The quotient of 6 by 0 is undefined, because Definition 0.17 requires a nonzero denominator.

Definition 0.19 (Follow-up and person-years)**.** In a study that observes participants over time, a participant's **follow-up** is the length of time the study observes that participant, and the study's **person-years** are the sum of the follow-up times of all participants, measured in years.

Example 0.18 (Counting person-years)**.** If 10 people are each followed for 2 years, the study has $10 \cdot 2 = 20$ person-years. If one person is followed for 3 years and another for $\frac{1}{2}$ year, the study has $3 + \frac{1}{2} = 3.5$ person-years.

Definition 0.20 (Rate)**.** A **rate** is a quotient of two quantities, usually with a denominator that measures time, such as weeks or person-years of follow-up (Definition 0.19). For example, 12 new cases in 4 weeks is a rate of $\frac{12}{4} = 3$ new cases per week, and 30 cases over 10,000 person-years of follow-up is a rate of $\frac{30}{10{,}000} = 0.003$ cases per person-year.

cf. https://en.wikipedia.org/wiki/Rate_(mathematics)

Definition 0.21 (Ratios)**.** A **ratio** is a quotient in which the numerator and denominator are measured using the same unit scales.
cf. https://en.wikipedia.org/wiki/Ratio

Example 0.19 (A ratio, and a quotient that is not one)**.**

- A board 150 cm long and one 75 cm long have length ratio $\frac{150\text{ cm}}{75\text{ cm}} = 2$: both lengths are in centimeters, so the units cancel and the ratio has none.
- A sample of mass 300 g and volume 150 cm^3 gives the quotient $\frac{300\text{ g}}{150\text{ cm}^3} = 2$ g per cm^3, its density. The numerator and denominator are in different units, so this quotient is not a ratio.

Definition 0.22 (Proportion)**.** In statistics, a **proportion** typically means a ratio where the numerator represents a subset of the denominator.
See https://en.wikipedia.org/wiki/Population_proportion.
See also https://en.wikipedia.org/wiki/Proportion_(mathematics) for other meanings.

Example 0.20 (A proportion, and a ratio that is not one)**.** In a clinic with 120 patients, 30 of whom smoke:

- the proportion of patients who smoke is $\frac{30}{120} = 0.25$: the 30 smokers are a subset of the 120 patients;

- the ratio of smokers to non-smokers is $\frac{30}{90} = \frac{1}{3}$. Both counts are of patients, so this quotient is a ratio, but it is not a proportion: the 30 smokers are not part of the 90 non-smokers.

Definition 0.23 (Proportional)**.** Two functions $f(x)$ and $g(x)$ are **proportional** if their ratio $\frac{f(x)}{g(x)}$ does not depend on x. (cf. https://en.wikipedia.org/wiki/Proportionality_(mathematics))

Example 0.21 (Proportional and non-proportional functions)**.**

- $f(x) = 6x^2$ and $g(x) = 2x^2$ are proportional: for $x \neq 0$,

$$\begin{aligned} \frac{f(x)}{g(x)} &= \frac{6x^2}{2x^2} \\ &= 3, \end{aligned}$$

  which does not depend on x.

- $f(x) = x + 1$ and $g(x) = x$ are not proportional: for $x \neq 0$,

$$\begin{aligned} \frac{f(x)}{g(x)} &= \frac{x+1}{x} \\ &= \frac{x}{x} + \frac{1}{x} \\ &= 1 + \frac{1}{x}, \end{aligned}$$

  which is 2 at $x = 1$ and $\frac{3}{2}$ at $x = 2$.

Additional reference for elementary algebra: https://en.wikipedia.org/wiki/Population_proportion#Mathematical_definition

Rudin, Walter. 1976. *Principles of Mathematical Analysis*. 3rd ed. International Series in Pure and Applied Mathematics. McGraw-Hill.